UNIT 2 LESSON 2: TO OBTAIN, PROVIDE, AND DISSEMINATE INFORMATION

What is Writing?

Writing is **being able to form thoughts, organize thoughts, and learn to give others your thoughts** so those thoughts can spread. Another term for this is communication (Englist, 2022).

The Process of Writing

1. **Prewriting**: includes exploring topics, choosing a topic, and beginning to gather and organize details before you write.
    - You can also call this the **planning stage of writing.** Here, you gather information, decide on strategies, ask guiding questions, and organize your ideas.
    - An **outline** is a direct and clear map of your essay. It shows what each paragraph will contain, in what order paragraphs will appear, and how all the points fit together as a whole.
        - **Outlines or previews are created to guide the flow of the work.**
        - Example: Before writing a love letter, you think about what you want to say.

2. **Drafting:** involves getting your ideas down on paper. This will serve as your blueprint, a plan on how to execute your writing.
    - **This is the stage where you write the first version of your work based on the outline.**
    - It serves as the **temporary record of ideas**, showing the initial form of the text.
    - Example: Imagine drafting as if you are sketching a drawing before coloring it.

3. **Revising:** this is the stage in which you rework your first draft to improve and review details in your content and structure.
    - At this stage, **you refine the draft by rereading and analyzing it.** You can add, delete, or replace ideas to improve clarity, logic, and organization.
    - For example, you are changing words to make them clearer, adding better examples.

4. **Editing and Proofreading**: it involves checking of your grammar, spelling, and mechanics.
    - **The final correction stage.** Here, you check work choice, spelling, grammar, and punctuation before producing the final copy.
    - For example, making sure 'their' is not confused with 'there.'

5. **Publishing and presenting**: a stage wherein you share your works to others and let them read yours.
    - **The completed text that is ready to be submitted, published, or shared.**
    - Example: Submitting your essay, posting online, or presenting to the class.

Qualities of Good Writing

1. **Strong Ideas**: The good ideas are the starting point of any writing. Always try to begin writing about something that interests you—that would be your edge among other writings.
2. **Organization**: You must present your ideas and details in a consistent and organized manner.
3. **Voice**: This refers to the sum total of your tone in your writing. It includes the way you use words and construct sentences.
4. **Word Choice:** Make sure you carefully choose the words you will use because these will be the building blocks of your writing.
5. **Sentence Fluency:** Read your work and identify which word is better to make the sentence smooth. Use proper transitions to connect your sentences.
6. **Conventions:** Ensure that you follow the conventions of English grammar.

A writer's style, which is an image of his or her personality, inimitable voice, and way of impending the audience and readers.

➢ A writer's style is like their fingerprint in writing. It shows how they think, feel, and express themselves; it is something that cannot be copied exactly by anyone else.

Four Types of Writing

1. **Expository** - Expository writing explains or informs. It talks about a subject without giving opinions. Expository writing's main purpose is to explain. It is a subject-oriented writing style, in which authors focus on telling you about a given topic or subject without articulating their personal thoughts. This is one of the most common types of writing. Expository writing explains and informs.
    - "Expository" = "exponere" (latin, "to explain")
    - Structure:
        - Introduction: States the thesis.
        - Body: Explains ideas with evidence.
        - Conclusion: Summarizes findings logically.

Key Points:

- Usually explains something in a process;
- Is often equipped with facts and figures; and
- usually in a logical order and sequence.

When You May Use Expository Writing:

- Textbook writing
- How-to articles
- Recipes
- News stories (not including opinion or editorial pieces)
- Business, technical, or scientific writing

2. **Descriptive** - Descriptive writing focuses on communicating the details of a character, event, or place. Descriptive writing's main purpose is to describe. It is a style of writing that focuses on describing a character, an event, or a place in great detail. It can be poetic when the author takes the time to be very specific in his or her descriptions. Descriptive writing paints vivid pictures through sensory detail.

Example:

In good descriptive writing, the author will not just say, "The vampire killed his lover." He or she will change the sentence, focusing on more details and descriptions, like, "The bloody, red-eyed vampire sank his rust-colored teeth into the soft skin of his lover and ended her life."

Key Points:

- It is often poetic in nature;
- It describes places, people, events, situations, or locations in a highly-detailed manner; and
- The author visualizes what he or she sees, hears, tastes, smells, and feels.

When You Would Use Descriptive Writing:

- Poetry
- Journal or diary writing
- Nature writing
- Descriptive passages in fiction

3. **Persuasive** - Persuasive writing tries to convince. In contrast to expository writing, persuasive writing comprises the sentiments and predispositions of the author. To sway others to agree with the author's point of view, persuasive writing contains rationalizations and explanations. It is often used in letters of complaint, advertisements or commercials, affiliate marketing pitches, cover letters, and newspaper opinion and editorial pieces.

Persuasive writing doesn't just rely on emotion — it also uses logic and credibility. This is often referred to as the **three appeals**:

- **Ethos (credibility):** convincing the audience of the writer's reliability or expertise.
- **Pathos (emotion):** appealing to the reader's feelings and values.
- **Logos (logic):** using facts, evidence, and reasoning to support claims.

Key Points:

- Persuasive writing is furnished with motives, arguments, and justifications
- In persuasive writing, the author takes a stand and asks you to agree with his or her point of view;
- It often asks for readers to do something about the situation (this is called a call to action).

When You May Use Persuasive Writing:

- Opinion and editorial newspaper pieces
- Advertisements
- Reviews (of books, music, movies, restaurants, etc.)
- Letter of recommendation
- Letter of complaint
- Cover letters

4. **Narrative** - A narrative tells a story. There will usually be characters and dialogue. Narrative writing's main purpose is to tell a story. The author will generate different characters and tell you what occurs to them (sometimes the author writes from the point of view of one of the characters—this is known as first-person narration). Novels, short stories, novellas, poetry, and biographies can all fall in the narrative writing style. Simply, narrative writing answers the question, "What happened then?"

Narrative writing allows the writer to express creativity and emotion while connecting with readers through **plot, character development, and setting**. It can be fictional or based on true events.

You can explore **elements of a narrative**, such as:

- **Setting:** Where and when the story takes place.
- **Characters:** The people or beings who drive the story.
- **Conflict:** The struggle or problem that creates tension.
- **Climax:** The turning point or most intense moment.
- **Resolution:** How the story ends or the conflict is solved.

Key Points:

- A person tells a story or event;
- Has characters and dialogue:
- It has definite sad logical beginnings, intervals, and endings; and
- Often has situations like actions, motivational events, and disputes or conflicts with their eventual solutions

Examples of When You Would Use Narrative Writing:

- Novels
- Short stories
- Novellas
- Poetry
- Autobiographies or biographies
- Anecdotes
- Oral histories

UNIT 2 LESSON 3: TO PERSUADE AND ARGUE

Persuasion and argumentation are essential communication skills that people use consciously or unconsciously in daily interactions. Whether in public speaking, group discussions, or personal conversations, the ability to persuade and argue effectively allows individuals to influence others' attitudes, beliefs, and behaviors while presenting logical reasoning.

Persuasion

- Scholars define persuasion as a communication process wherein a communicator seeks to elicit a desired response from the receiver.
- It is a conscious attempt by an individual to change another's attitudes, beliefs, or behaviors through the transmission of messages.
- Persuasion is symbolic in nature and involves voluntary acceptance of new ideas or behavioral patterns through the exchange of messages.
- A successful intentional effort at influencing another's mental state through communication in a circumstance in which the persuader has some measure of freedom.

Rhetoric - the study of persuasion

- Started 2500 years ago
- Studies the capacity needed to inform, persuade, or motivate a particular audience. It contains information on how we craft our arguments and support our position with hard evidence and reasoning and demonstrate our credibility, and how we engage listeners' emotions.

Why Persuasion? (Characteristics)

1. **Persuasion is a symbolic process:** It takes time, consists of several steps, and requires active participation from the recipient of the message.

2. **Persuasion involves an attempt to influence:** It does not guarantee success but aims to encourage a change in perception or behavior.
3. **People persuade themselves:** True persuasion allows individuals to make decisions voluntarily; persuaders guide rather than force.
4. **Persuasion involves the transmission of a message:** Messages may be verbal or nonverbal and can be transmitted through interpersonal communication, mass media, or digital platforms. They can be factual, emotional, or even simple cues like advertisements or music.
5. **Persuasion requires free choice:** Effective persuasion depends on the individual's freedom to decide and alter behavior based on personal willingness.

What is Argumentation?

- Argumentation involves identifying relevant norms and conclusions about a specific problem or issue.
- It often requires analyzing conflicting information, weighing evidence, and forming logical conclusions. Unlike persuasion, which focuses on influencing beliefs or behaviors, argumentation emphasizes reasoning and critical analysis.
- In everyday life, people use argumentation when faced with decisions or conflicting ideas.
- Professionals such as lawyers, scientists, clinicians, and journalists employ argumentation to analyze information, assess pros and cons, and present conclusions to an audience or decision-making body.
- **It is thus a vital component of rational communication and informed judgment.**

What Is a Register?

A register (or style) refers to a variety of language used in a specific social setting. Registers depend on the level of formality, purpose, and relationship between the speaker and audience. They are distinct from dialects and are associated with particular professions, contexts, or communication purposes.

Types of Speech Style

According to Martin Joos (1959), there are five main speech styles based on formality and function:

1. **Formal Style:** a formal writing style characterized by the use of precise vocabulary, complex sentence structures, and objective tone, typically employed in public speaking, academic writing, and professional settings.
2. **Intimate Style:** This refers to an intimate style of communication used between individuals who are very close; it relies on shared background, private vocabulary, and nonverbal cues.
3. **Casual Style:** is a relaxed, informal way of speaking used among friends or acquaintances, employing everyday language and requiring minimal shared background knowledge.
4. **Consultative Style:** Employed in semi-formal interactions (such as meetings or classroom discussions), it allows two-way participation, feedback, and clarification, and does not assume shared background knowledge between parties.
5. **Frozen Style:** the most formal register, used in official or ceremonial contexts; language is fixed, ritualistic, and unchanging (for example, oaths, pledges, or formal declarations).

UNIT 3 LESSON 1: WRITING YOUR JOB APPLICATION LETTER

SEVERAL WAYS TO FIND A JOB

There are several ways to find a job, and these include:

1. **Checking job search engines:** Websites like *JobStreet.com*, *OnlineJobs.ph*, and *JobsDB.com* are great places to start.
2. **Visiting company websites**: If you already have a specific company in mind, go directly to their website and check their *Careers* section.
3. **Consulting local government resources**: Many cities have a *Public Employment Services Office (PESO)* or *Labor and Industrial Relations Office* that provides job listings and assistance to jobseekers.
4. **Attending career fairs**: These events allow you to explore multiple job opportunities in one place and sometimes even help you process government IDs like SSS, PhilHealth, and Pag-IBIG.
5. **Reading newspaper classified ads:** Although not as popular today, newspapers still post job openings that are often overlooked by others.
6. **Networking**: Never underestimate the power of connections. Talk to friends, relatives, teachers, or former colleagues who might refer you to a good company.

By combining these strategies, you increase your chances of finding the job that's perfect for you.

CHARACTERISTICS OF AN EFFECTIVE JOB APPLICATION LETTER

A job application letter (also called a *cover letter*) usually accompanies your resume. It's your **first impression**—your personal introduction to the employer.

- Think of it as the *book cover summary* that makes you want to buy the book. In the same way, your letter should convince the employer that you are worth calling for an interview.

According to *work.chron.com*, here are the key characteristics of an effective job application letter:

1. **A Specific Start**: State clearly what position you're applying for and why you're interested in it. Mention something you know about the company to show genuine interest.
2. **Explain Yourself**: Highlight your skills, qualifications, and experiences that are most relevant to the position.
3. **Acknowledge Employer's Preferences**: Address the requirements or concerns mentioned in the job post. This shows that you carefully read and understood their needs.
4. **Request Contact**: Politely express your hope for an interview and provide your complete contact details.
5. **Professional Presentation**: Always check for grammar, spelling, and formatting errors. Your letter should look neat, clean, and professional.

QUALITIES OF A GOOD APPLICATION LETTER

To make a lasting impression, your letter must have these qualities:

1. **Complete**: Include all the essential details, such as your background, experience, and contact information.
2. **Simple and Clear**: Avoid complicated words. Be direct and easy to understand.
3. **Accurate**: Ensure all information is factual and error-free. Never exaggerate achievements.
4. **Relevant**: Focus only on details that are related to the job you're applying for.
5. **Courteous and Neat**: Maintain a polite tone and a clean format.

ESSENTIAL PARTS OF A JOB APPLICATION LETTER

A well-written job application letter usually contains the following parts:

1. **Heading**: Includes your name, address, contact number, and email address.

John A. Doe 123 Maple Street Quezon City, Metro Manila Philippines Mobile: +63 912 345 6789 Email: john.doe@email.com

2. **Date**: Write the full date, like *October 15, 2018*, instead of using numbers only.
3. **Inside Address**: The recipient's name, position, company, and company address

Ms. Maria R. Santos Human Resources Manager ABC Corporation 456 Ayala Avenue Makati City, Metro Manila Philippines

4. **Salutation**: "Sir," "Madam," or "Dear Sir/Madam."
5. **Greeting**: A polite opening such as "Greetings! " or "Good day! "

   Body—Divided into three parts:
   - **Introduction:** State the position you're applying for and where you found the job post.
   - **Main Body:** Describe your education, skills, and experiences that make you fit for the role.
   - **Conclusion:** Express gratitude and your willingness to be interviewed.
6. **Complimentary Close:** Examples: "Very respectfully yours" or "Sincerely yours."
7. **Signature Line** – Your handwritten signature above your printed name.
8. **Enclosures**: Lists the documents attached, such as your résumé or transcript.

FORMATS OF A JOB APPLICATION LETTER

There are three common formats used in professional letters:

1. **Block Format**: Everything is left-aligned. It's the most common and looks formal and neat.
2. **Modified Block Format**: Your name, address, and date appear on the right side of the page. The rest of the letter is left-aligned.
3. **Semi-Block Format**: Similar to modified block, but each paragraph is indented. It's slightly more informal.

UNIT 3 LESSON 2: WRITING SCIENTIFIC REPORTS IN THE HEALTH CARE PROFESSION

Scientific Reports vs. Academic Reports

Scientific reports and academic reports are two distinct types of written documents, although there may be some overlap between them. Here are the primary differences between the two:

1. Purpose and Audience:

- ➢ Scientific reports aim to communicate specific research findings to the scientific community (researchers, scientists) on a particular hypothesis or experiment.
- ➢ Academic reports serve a broader academic audience (professors, students, and scholars) and cover a wider range of topics (not only natural sciences) such as humanities, social sciences, or interdisciplinary research.

2. Content and Structure:

- ➢ Scientific reports are structured rigidly, commonly following the IMRAD format (Introduction, Methods, Results, Discussion) plus often an Abstract and Conclusion.
- ➢ Academic reports may adopt more flexible structures (Introduction, Literature Review, Methodology, Findings/Analysis, Discussion, Conclusion) depending on discipline and requirements.

3. Formality and Style:

- ➢ Scientific reports use formal, objective language, often employing passive voice, technical terminology and focusing on precision and clarity.
- ➢ Academic reports, while still formal, allow more variation in tone, may incorporate interpretive or critical discussion, and the style may vary by field (e.g., humanities vs. sciences).

4. Publication and Review Process:

- ➢ Scientific reports frequently are submitted to scientific journals or conferences and undergo rigorous peer review by experts in the field.
- ➢ Academic reports can be published in journals, as theses/dissertations, or institutional reports; the review process may vary (supervisor, committee, peer review) depending on the venue.

Elements of a Scientific Report

1. Title

- Concise, informative, and clearly conveys the study's focus.
- Begins with keywords and uses verbs rather than abstract nouns.
- Avoids abbreviations, jargon, wasteful phrases (e.g., "studies on"), and question marks.
- Does *not* mention results or conclusions.

2. Abstract

- Self-contained, written as 1 or more well-developed paragraphs (≈ 250 words or less).
- Presents purpose, methods, scope, key findings and significance — in that order.
- Adds no new information beyond the body of the paper.

3. Introduction

- Provides background, context and rationale for the study.
- Reviews relevant literature, identifies gap or research question.
- States the purpose and novelty of the research clearly.
- Avoids repeating the abstract or over-claiming without basis.

4. Methods

- Describes how the study was conducted: design, sample, data-collection, interventions, etc.
- Gives enough detail to allow reproducibility.
- Specifies technical details, equipment, analysis methods, justifications.
- Avoids presenting results, extraneous detail, or treating as a chronological narrative rather than a clear description.

5. Results

- Presents findings clearly and factually (text, tables, figures, analyses).

- Focuses on representative data, logical order, meaningful statistics.
- Does *not* interpret the data (that belongs to Discussion).

6. Discussion

- Interprets the results in relation to the research question and literature.
- Discusses implications, limitations, and alternative explanations.
- Highlights significance without repeating the results section.

7. Conclusion

- Summarizes the main findings and their significance.
- Addresses the research question and draws evidence-based final statements.

8. References

- Lists all cited sources in a consistent format.
- Includes only works cited in the text (not every article encountered).
- Up-to-date, accurate and without biased omissions.

9. Appendices (if applicable)

- Contains supplementary material (e.g., questionnaires, raw data, detailed analyses) that supports the main paper.
- Additional sections may include acknowledgments, funding sources, and a conflict-of-interest statement

UNIT 3 LESSON 3: JOURNALISTIC AND LEGAL WRITING

Journal Writing

Characteristics:

- ➢ **Timeliness:** Journalistic writing prioritizes delivering news and information in a timely manner, focusing on current events and their relevance to the audience.
- ➢ **Clarity:** Journalistic writing aims to convey information concisely and understandably, utilizing simple language and avoiding jargon whenever possible.
- ➢ **Objectivity:** Journalistic writing strives to present information objectively, providing a balanced view of different perspectives without personal bias.
- ➢ **Engaging Narrative:** Journalistic writing often employs storytelling techniques to captivate readers and analyze their legal implications and provide interpretations.
- ➢ **Arguments:** Presents persuasive arguments and logical reasoning to support a particular position or legal conclusion.
- ➢ **Conclusion:** Summarizes the main arguments and legal conclusions, often providing a recommendation or proposed action.

Techniques for Effective Journalistic Writing

Conducting Research:

- **Gathering Reliable Sources:** Journalistic writing requires thorough research using reputable sources to ensure accuracy and credibility.
- **Fact-Checking:** Verifying information through multiple sources and cross-referencing data to avoid misinformation or inaccuracies.
- **Interview Techniques:** Conducting effective interviews with relevant sources to gather insights, quotes, and additional information.

Writing Style and Structure:

- **Clear and Concise Language:** Using plain language that is accessible to a wide range of readers.
- **Active Voice:** inverted pyramid structure, subheadings, and bullet points to enhance clarity and readability.

C. Ethical Considerations:

- **Objectivity and Impartiality:** Striving for neutrality and avoiding personal biases or conflicts of interest
- **Attribution and Plagiarism:** Properly attributing sources and avoiding plagiarism by citing all information and giving credit to the original authors.

Techniques for Effective Legal Writing

Legal Research:

- **Primary and Secondary Sources:** Understanding the distinction between primary sources (case law, statutes) and secondary sources (commentaries, legal treatises) to conduct comprehensive legal research.
- **Online Legal Databases**: Utilizing online legal databases and resources to access relevant legal materials efficiently.

Writing Style and Structure:

- **Clarity and Precision:** Using precise and unambiguous language to convey legal concepts and arguments effectively.
- **Organization and Structure:** Following a logical structure with clear headings, subheadings, and numbered paragraphs to enhance readability and facilitate comprehension.
- **Persuasive Writing:** Employing persuasive techniques such as logical reasoning, analogies, and effective use of precedents to make compelling legal arguments.

Citations and Legal References:

- **(e.g., book or other citation styles:** properly citing legal authorities and sources using appropriate citation styles (e.g. Bluebook) to ensure accuracy and integrity.
- **Case Analysis and Legal Precedents:** Analyzing relevant case law and legal precedents to support legal arguments and interpretations.

UNIT 4 LESSON 1: HOW TO DEVELOP A RESEARCH STUDY?

Designating the Research Tasks

Develop a **schedule** tailored to the workload (individual or group) because research is complex and time-consuming.

1. **Choose the topic/interest** via group discussion; ensure genuine interest and relevance to current issues or your field.
2. Conduct **preliminary research** to narrow the topic, validate it, and explore background information.
3. Formulate **research questions** (using What, Where, When, Why, Who, How) once the topic is more focused.
4. **Schedule field research activities** (interviews, surveys, observations) and identify resource persons or sources as needed.
5. Prepare the **bibliography** or list of references as you go, tracking all sources (books, journals, websites) for proper documentation.
6. Write a **rough draft** based on your outline, then revise extensively.

7. Produce the **final draft** after revision, editing and proofreading.

Establishing the Schedule

1. Seek **related literature** both in the library and online—this literature should be *more specific* than what you used in preliminary research.
2. Draw on a **variety of sources** (local or foreign authors; books; journals; periodicals; archives; personal essays/notes).
3. As you locate sources, **begin alphabetising** them to prepare your bibliography.
4. Conduct **field research activities** (interviews, surveys, observations) because library/web data alone are often insufficient.
5. **Sketch a tentative research outline** before writing the draft: serves as the logical skeleton of the research paper.
6. Write the **first draft**, then gather any additional information needed, revise thoroughly, and prepare subsequent versions before arriving at the final draft.

The format below will help you design the schedule of your research project:

Activity	No Weeks / Days Dedicated:	Target Date of Completion:	Completed by:
Choose the topic/ interest			
Do a preliminary research			
Come up with research questions			
Schedule interviews and other field research			
Look for related literatures in library and in Web			
Implementation of the necessary field research activity			
Sketch a tentative research outline			
Write the first draft			
Get additional information			
Revise			
Preparation of the bibliography			
Edit and Proofread			
Write the final draft			

With this, your group will be able to see the progress of the research project. You can also easily tap and help the members who are having a hard time completing their assigned task. It is more advisable to fill out this table schedule during the first meeting of the group to settle the possible conflict in schedule and survey their strengths and weaknesses.

UNIT 4 LESSON 2: DOING A RESEARCH STUDY AND FINDING SOURCES

KINDS OF SOURCES

Primary & Secondary Sources

- Primary sources are first-hand, original materials created by someone directly involved in the event, phenomenon or subject under investigation.
- Secondary sources interpret, evaluate, summarise or analyse primary sources rather than presenting original first-hand evidence.
- The value of a source depends on its **appropriateness and relevance to your study**, not solely on whether it is primary or secondary.
- Examples of primary sources: diaries, interviews, government documents, original research articles.
- Examples of secondary sources: journal articles reviewing prior work, textbooks, encyclopaedias.

Print vs Online Sources

- Sources may appear **only in print** (books, periodicals, archival documents) or **only online** (digital databases, e-journals, websites).
- Researchers should **not assume lesser value** of online sources simply because they are easier to access; the same scrutiny for credibility and relevance applies.
- Prior to searching online, define **specific keywords** relevant to your topic to produce precise results.

Reference Works

- **General reference** works (encyclopaedias, dictionaries, almanacs) provide broad background information and are very useful in early/preliminary research.
- **Specialised reference** works (bibliographies, subject-specific periodicals, and academic journals) provide deeper, discipline-specific information and are especially useful when narrowing your topic.
- It is good practice to **alphabetically list all works cited** as you find them, in preparation for your bibliography.

Field Research Methods

Interview

- Before: Identify and contact the interviewee; prepare questions; obtain consent (especially under data-privacy regulations); record the date/time/place.
- During: Keep to the agreed time; take notes and/or record; ensure the interviewee understands the purpose.
- After: Review and clarify your notes; send a thank-you message; ensure you can cite the source appropriately.

Participant Observation

- Purpose: Decide what you will observe, how visible you will be to participants, and what the goals are.
- During: Write descriptive notes (colors, shapes, behaviors, environment); optionally take photos/videos (with permission); narrate what is happening.
- After: Review your observations, identify any gaps, and analyze patterns, traits, or behaviors.

Questionnaire/Survey

- Define your **goal**: what you want to find out.
- Define your **sample**: who should answer, how many, how they reflect the population.
- Determine the **medium**: face-to-face, online, paper.
- Design questions carefully: multiple choice, rating scales, agreement scales, closed-ended questions can all be used.
- Larger, well-chosen samples improve representativeness.

UNIT 4 LESSON 3: DOING A RESEARCH STUDY AND EVALUATING SOURCES

EVALUATING AND FINDING RELIABLE SOURCES

- ➢ Finding sources goes hand in hand with **evaluating** them. The sources included in your study must be **relevant** and **reliable**. Researchers must be able to decide which materials are worth reading. Since research is time-consuming, it's important to identify which sources are essential to your study.
- ➢ Considering the rise of **fake websites** and **misinformation** online, researchers must double their effort to identify **credible** and **reliable** sources from unreliable ones.

WHY EVALUATE SOURCES?

One of the key purposes of evaluating sources is to determine their **credibility** and **reliability**.

- **Print sources** such as **books** and **journal articles** usually go through a series of **peer reviews**, **fact-checks**, and **revisions** before publication.
- **Online materials**, however, may not undergo the same process. Because anyone can **post**, **write**, **upload**, or **edit** information online, their **reliability** is often questionable.
- Some websites even become **inactive** or **hacked** over time, which further challenges their credibility.

Your Role as a Researcher

- ➢ As a researcher, it is your **duty** to **fact-check** the materials and sources you use. You must be equipped with the right **concepts** and **evaluative skills** to ensure your references support your study's **purpose** and **goals**.
- ➢ Use the following guide questions to help evaluate your sources:

1. **Check the Relevance**
   - How is this source relevant to the purpose of my study?
   - How do its contents contribute to my research?

2. **Check the Author's Credentials**
   - Who is the source of the information?
   - What are the author's qualifications?
   - Is the author known for a specific stand on the issue?
   - If it came from an online source, who is the **website host**?

3. **Check the Point of View**
   - Does the title suggest or advocate a certain idea or bias?
   - If it's from a website, check the **links** or **affiliations** that the site subscribes to.

4. **Check the Publisher**
   - If it's a **book**, what is the **reputation of the publisher**?
   - What kinds of materials does the publisher usually produce?
   - For **journals**, what is the theme or discipline of the periodical?

5. **Check the Website Sponsor**
   - Who **hosts** or **sponsors** the website?
   - Is it a **government agency**, **private institution**, or **interest group**?

Example:

- Government sites: .gov (e.g., **nasa.gov**)
- Educational institutions: .edu (e.g., **harvard.edu**)
- Commercial sites: .com (e.g., **forbes.com**)

6. Check the Date Published
   - When was the material **published** or **updated**?
   - For print sources, **recent publications** are usually more reliable.
   - For online materials, verify both the **date** and the **host website's credibility**.

UNIT 4 LESSON 4: PROPER CITATION, DOCUMENTATION AND AVOIDING PLAGIARISM

KINDS OF SOURCES

Understanding Documentation Style

Modern Language Association (MLA) and **American Psychological Association (APA)** are commonly used in academic research. Each serves its purpose—for example, **MLA** is used chiefly in **humanities**, while **APA** is used in **social sciences**.

Both styles consist of:

1. Brief **in-text parenthetical documentation** for quotations, paraphrases, or summaries.
2. A **detailed list of sources** at the end of the text.

MLA and APA styles are not the only documentation styles existing. Other organizations have their own, such as the **University of Chicago Press**. However, most students are asked to use **APA** and **MLA** styles for their academic papers.

APA STYLE GUIDE

- ➢ The **APA style** was established in **1929**. It is used to guide research to achieve standards for language, construction of correct reference citations, and avoidance of plagiarism.
- ➢ APA style is an essential tool in writing **scientific papers**, **laboratory reports**, and papers covering topics in **psychology, education**, and other **social sciences**.
- ➢ It allows **in-text citations, direct quotations, endnotes, and footnotes**. It also allows authors to use **past tense verbs** when reporting information.

APA Style In-Text Citation

Examples:

As Faigley (1992) suggested, "The world has become a bazaar from which to shop for an individual lifestyle" (p. 12).

As one observer has noted, "The world has become a

bazaar from which to shop for an individual lifestyle" (Faigley, 1992, p. 12).

APA Style Reference List Documentation
Example:

Faigley, L. (1992). *Fragments of rationality: Postmodernity and the subject of composition*. University of Pittsburgh Press.

MLA STYLE GUIDE

- The **MLA style guide** is commonly used in **literary research** and academic papers in the **humanities**.
- It follows strict rules in its manuscripts. Compared to APA, MLA focuses on the **citation of books, anthologies, literary works, and audio-visual materials**.
  It also uses **present tense verbs**, unlike APA style.

MLA Style In-Text Documentation
Examples:

As Lester Faigley puts it, "The world has become a bazaar from which to shop for an individual lifestyle" (12).

As one observer suggests, "The world has become a bazaar from which to shop for an individual lifestyle" (Faigley 12).

MLA Style Works-Cited Documentation
Example:

Faigley, Lester. *Fragments of Rationality: Postmodernity and the Subject of Composition*. U of Pittsburgh P, 1992.

PLAGIARISM

When you use words, sentences, or paragraphs from others, you have the responsibility to acknowledge the source of information. If you do not give credit to the author/s, you will be accused and guilty of **plagiarism**.

Plagiarism occurs when:

1. You use another writer's words or ideas without in-text citation and documentation.
2. You use the exact words of the writer without quotation marks.
3. You copy, paraphrase, or summarize a work using language too close to the original.

Tip to Avoid Plagiarism
Proper note-taking helps avoid plagiarism.

- Clearly label **direct quotations**, **paraphrases**, and **summaries** in your notes.
- Keep track of all your **sources** so you can document them accurately later.

UNIT 4 LESSON 5: WRITING ABSTRACTS

A research paper usually comes with a summary that gives readers the gist of the whole research. In academia, these summaries are called **abstracts**. The purpose of an abstract is to give readers an overview of your study — often required for conference submissions.

DEFINITION AND KEY FEATURES

- An abstract is a **brief summary** of a research paper, often **100–200 words** (sometimes shorter).
- It includes the main points of the study: purpose, methods, key findings/results, conclusion, and sometimes implications.
- A good abstract stands alone and communicates the essence of the full work.

COMMON KINDS OF ABSTRACTS

Informative Abstracts

- Widely used in academic and scientific fields.
- Includes description of the project, methods, results and conclusions.
- Serves as a summary of the entire work

Descriptive Abstracts

- Shorter than informative abstracts.
- Provides a "teaser" overview rather than full detail (often missing results/conclusions).
- Helps readers decide whether to read further.

Proposal Abstracts

- Intended to persuade: e.g., to present a project for approval, grant submission or conference.
- Includes purpose and planned methods, often **before** the research is completed.

HOW TO WRITE AN ABSTRACT?

- Usually write the abstract **after** completing the full paper, so you know the methods, results and conclusions.
- Begin with the context (why the research matters), then the purpose/research question, the method, the key results or expected results, and the conclusion/implications.
- **Ensure the abstract is:**
  - Accurate (reflects what is in the paper)
  - Self-contained (can stand alone)
  - Concise and specific
  - Non-evaluative (don't critique the paper in the abstract)
- Include relevant keywords that help others find the paper.

UNIT 4 LESSON 6: WRITING REFLECTIVE ESSAYS

Reflective essays allow writers to examine and express personal thoughts or experiences about a specific topic. They combine **self-reflection** and **academic structure**, helping students develop writing and critical-thinking skills.

KEY FEATURES OF REFLECTIVE ESSAYS

1. **Deals with a Specific Topic:** Focuses on one main idea or experience — personal, emotional, or intellectual — and explores what was learned or realized.
2. **Structured:** Like any essay, it includes an **introduction**, **body**, and **conclusion**. Ideas should flow logically and engage the reader throughout.
3. **Specific Details:** Uses vivid descriptions and examples to make experiences or reflections clear and relatable.
4. **Speculative and Questioning Tone:** Reflective writing encourages curiosity and exploration, leading readers toward deeper insights rather than giving direct answers.

WAYS OF ORGANIZING A REFLECTIVE ESSAY

1. Begin by defining or describing your subject or perhaps with an anecdote or observation.
2. Explore you topic with: Anecdotes; Observations; Definitions; Speculations
3. End With: A telling image; Material for further thought; A statement about the implications of your topic

UNIT 4 LESSON 7: PREPARING FOR ACADEMIC PRESENTATIONS

Your research journey does not end with the final draft. In academia, you may be required to present your findings at a conference, lecture, or research colloquium. Visual media often accompany such presentations to help the audience understand your study. An effective presentation consists of two major elements: media design **and** oral delivery. Both must be prepared carefully.

TYPICAL OUTLINE FOR PRESENTATION MEDIA DESIGN

1. Title slide (1 slide): author name, affiliation, email/website
2. Slides for motivation (2-3 slides) (e.g., quotation, story, ice-breaker)
3. Outline slide (1 slide): overview of what will be covered
4. Lecture proper: use visuals (charts, graphs, photos, short videos) and keywords—avoid long text paragraphs
    a. Photos: ensure consent if individuals are involved
    b. Videos: keep clips short (15–30 seconds)
5. (3-4 slides) Results/conclusion slides: focus on key findings, use graphs and charts
6. (1 slide) (Summary slide: highlight main points in bullet form
7. (0-1 slide) Future work or recommendations slide (optional)

TIPS FOR EFFECTIVE MEDIA DESIGN

Content:

1. Present **one major topic per slide**
2. Use **keywords** rather than full sentences
3. Keep visuals and text aligned with your oral message

Design:

1. Use **simple and consistent design themes**
2. Choose **sans serif fonts** for body text (e.g., Arial, Helvetica, Calibri) and reserve more decorative serif fonts (e.g., Georgia, Baskerville) for headers
3. Maintain large, readable font size (22pt or larger)
4. Avoid using **all capital letters** (this can be harder to read and may feel like shouting)
5. Stick to **two or three type-fonts** across the slides

Colours & Contrast:

1. Ensure strong contrast between background and text (e.g., dark text on light background or vice versa)
2. Use clean, uncluttered backgrounds to enhance readability

Alignment & Layout:

1. Align text left or right; avoid centering large blocks of text
2. Use white space effectively to let elements breathe

Transitions & Multimedia:

1. Use subtle, professional animations if needed; avoid over-use of flashy transitions
2. Use high-quality videos and music; ensure rights/permissions for any copyrighted materials
3. Cite sources for photos, videos, and any external media, just as you would in your paper

Why Design Matters

Good media design helps you communicate your message clearly, keeps your audience engaged, and enhances the professionalism of your presentation. Poor design can distract, confuse, or reduce the impact of your content. For instance, visual design guidelines recommend that each slide focus on a single idea, and that visuals replace heavy text whenever possible.

UNIT 4 LESSON 8: WHEN TO TALK?

- Writing an academic paper is only half of the academic experience—presenting it completes the process. Oral presentations in conferences, colloquiums, or lectures allow students to share their research as contributions to the academic community. However, speaking requires a different set of skills than writing, and both demand careful preparation.
- Maintaining your audience's attention is one of the greatest challenges in giving a lecture. Studies show that an individual's attention span lasts only **10–15 minutes**. Therefore, as a speaker, you must actively help your audience stay engaged.

According to **Edwards (2014)**, an effective oral presentation should:

1. Communicate your arguments and evidence clearly.
2. Persuade the audience to understand and believe your points.
3. Engage them throughout your talk.

HOW TO ACE AN ORAL PRESENTATION

1. **Present Yourself Well:** Dress appropriately for the event (usually semi-formal). Following the dress code shows professionalism and respect for the audience and organizers.
2. **Create an Outline:** Summarize your key points in an outline. You may add brief notes or cue cards to guide your talk.
3. **Talk, Don't Read:** Speaking naturally is more effective than reading word-for-word. Use note cards for important quotations or excerpts only.
4. **Be Dynamic and Move NaturallY:** Use hand gestures and natural movement to express enthusiasm. Avoid being stiff or motionless.
5. **Vary Your Voice:** Avoid a monotonous tone. Practice modulating your pitch to keep your talk engaging. Rehearse in front of a mirror or record yourself for feedback.
6. **Speak Clearly and Face the Audience:** Maintain eye contact and project your voice so that everyone can hear and follow your discussion.
7. **Use Humor Carefully:** A few light jokes can help sustain attention, but be mindful not to offend anyone. Always consider your audience's background and sensibilities.
8. **Never Announce That You're Unprepared:** Even if you feel nervous, avoid saying so. Remember — *you know your study better than anyone else in the room.*
9. **Practice Consistently (WYSIWYG: What You See Is What You Get):** Practice is key to confidence. The more you rehearse, the smoother your delivery will be.

HANDLING QUESTIONS AFTER THE PRESENTATION

In academic settings, presentations are often followed by a short **Q&A session**. Edwards (2014) provides these strategies for handling questions effectively:

1. **Ask for Clarification:** If a question is unclear, politely ask the audience or the questioner to rephrase it.

2. **Reserve Key Points for the Q&A:** Save a few insights or examples to use during the question period to enrich your answers.

3. **Handle Difficult Questions Gracefully:** When faced with a tough question, acknowledge it respectfully. You can respond by saying: "That's an interesting question. I'm not sure I can fully answer it now, but based on my findings..."